Finals

# COOPERATIVE PRINCIPLE

## Topic – 104 Introduction

The British Philosopher H. Paul Grice (1913–1988 argued for an intention-based th meaning, and was the first to illustrate the distinction between what came to be called semar pragmatic meaning, that is, between what a speaker's utterance means in the abstract, and wha speaker can mean by uttering it in a particular context.

Grice (1975) posited a general set of rules, contributors to the ordinary conversation Cooperative Principle (CP). He (1989) stated, 'Make your conversational contribution such as, is re t the stage at which it occurs, by the accepted purpose or direction of the talk exchange in which ngaged'. Grice never intended his use of the word 'cooperation' to indicate an ideal v ommunication.

Rather, he was trying to describe how it happens that – despite the haphazard or even ag ature of human communication – most discourse participants are quite capable of making ther nderstood.

## Topic – 105 Observing the Maxims

Grice identified the Cooperative Principle as a 'super principle' or a 'supreme principle' hat he generalized from four conversational 'maxims'. He identifies these maxims as follow:

**Maxim of quantity** – says that speaker should be as informative as is required. They shou either too little information nor too much. **Maxim of Quality** – information provided in convers e genuine and justified. **Maxim of relation** – says that speakers are assumed to be saying someth s relevant to what has been said before. **Maxim of manner** – says that we should be brief and nd avoid obscurity and ambiguity.

Grice said that hearers assume that speakers observe the cooperative principle and that nowledge of the maxims that allows hearers to draw inferences about the speakers' intentions and meaning.

## Topic – 106 Flouting the Maxims

When speakers appear not to follow the maxims but expect hearer to appreciate the r mplied, we say that they are 'flouting '. For instance, in Britain, its quite common to say, ***'Do y 's getting a bit chilly in here?'*** and mean ***'I want to put the fire on'***. When flouting a maxim, the ssumes that the hearer knows that their words should not be taken at face value and they can i mplicit meaning (Cutting, 2002).

**Flouting quantity** – the speaker who flouts this maxim seems to give too little or to nformation. **Flouting quality** – speaker may do it in several ways e.g. exaggerating as in hyperbol

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metaphor, irony, and banter. **Flouting relation** - the hearer will be able to imagi not say, and make the connection between their utterances, **Flouting manne** obscure, often trying to exclude a third party.

## Topic – 107 Violating the Maxims

Violation takes place by speaker intentionally or when thr speaker kno know the truth and will only understand thr surface meaning. People tend to tell e.g. hide the truth, feel jealousy, cheer the hearer, etc.

Maxim violation is unostentatiously, quiet deceiving. **Violating the ma** ***How much did that new dress cost? Wife: Less than the last one.*** Here, the w the dress by not saying how much; thus, not giving the required information to maxim of quantity.

**Violating the maxim Quality** – Considering the same example, the wif did that new dress cost?' It could have violated the maxim of quality by not bei the wrong information i.e. thirty-five hundred rupees'.

**Violating the maxim relation** – Similarly, in answer to 'How much did wife tries to distract him and change the topic saying: I know, let's go out tonigh like to go? This shows the violation of the maxim of relation.

**Violating the maxim manner** – In answer to 'How much did that new that 'a tiny fraction of my salary, though probably a bigger fraction of the salary to me', Hoping that it could be taken as an answer and the matter could be dro wife answers the question in a way that could be said to be violating the maxim o everything except what the husband wants to know.

## Topic – 108 Limitations of the Cooperative Principle

Despite the care with which he used the term ''cooperation,'' Grice promulgating a theory that assumes too friendly a spirit of communicative intera example, Tannen (1986) claims that Grice's maxims of cooperative discour conversations''. In conversation, "we wouldn't want to simply blurt out what udging the needs for involvement and independence" (Tannen, 1986).

He assumes that Grice's maxims are prescriptions that conversations mu be considered cooperative. Another problem with the cooperative principle verlap between the four maxims. It can be difficult to say which one is operating perating at once. Another major objection to Grice's model is different mmunities have their own ways of observing and expressing maxims for partic

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# RELEVANCE THEORY

## Topic – 109 What is Relevance Theory?

Relevance theory emerged in 1980s in the collaborative work of Wilson and Sp conversational implicature is understood by hearers simply by selecting the relevant and recognizing whatever speakers say as relevant to the conversation. This theory is s theory because of its focus on the use of language in communication specifically, between meaning and context. It is also a cognitive theory, in that it is concerned wi between language and mind.

The core of the theory is the communicative principle of relevance. When h make sense of a text, they interpret the connections between utterances as meaningful, by drawing on their own background knowledge of the world (Cutting, 2010: 41) communication is not to 'duplicate thoughts' but to 'enlarge mutual cognitive environ Wilson, 1995: 193). The degree of relevance is governed by 'contextual effects' and ' (Cutting, 2010: 41).

## Topic – 110 Principles of Relevance Theory

Wilson and Sperber classified Relevance theory into two main principles: Cogni Communicative Principle of Relevance.

Any external stimulus or internal representation which provides an input to cog may be relevant to an individual at some time. Utterances raise expectations of releva speakers are expected to obey a cooperative Principle and maxims, but because the searcl a basic feature of human cognition.

Communicative Principle of Relevance is an attempt to work out one of Grice' that an essential feature of most human communication, both verbal and non-verbal, is th recognition of intentions. We keep on producing stimuli which gain other people's attent the ground for communication. It is the tendency to maximize relevance that makes it po and manipulate the mental states of others knowing your tendency to pick out the most re

## Topic – 111 Explicatures and Implicatures

According to relevance theorists, the **"explicature,"** or **"explicit content"**, of ar sentence is a "development" of the sentence's "logical form".

An implicature is something that is built from what the speaker says in uttering the s conceptions sound similar enough, so how do they differ? Explicatures and implicature

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premises and conclusions) are arrived at by a process of mutual parallel adjusti
both being considered in order of accessibility.

Apparently both explicature and implicature sound similar, but these l
other. Explicature, in simple terms, is directly conveyed content - "orally and
utterance. On the other hand, implicature is something which is implied in an u
a speaker means one thing and conveys something else in addition. It is a hidde

## Topic – 112 Conceptual and Procedural Meaning

The **conceptual–procedural** distinction was introduced into rele
Blakemore (1987) to account for differences between regular 'content' words (
know, on the one hand) and discourse connectives (such as but, so, also, and af
vast majority of lexical items have conceptual meaning, including common nou
verbs ('consider', 'leap', etc.), adjectives (e.g. 'red', 'slow', etc.), adverbs ('sac
prepositions ('behind', 'under', etc.).

Relevance theorists have claimed that words such as 'but', 'however', an
procedures. These items indicate something about the context in which they ar
guide the hearer towards intended contextual effects, and hence reduce the ov
process the discourse. Two ways to distinguish between conceptual and procedura
perber, 1993: 16): (a) Conceptual meaning is available to consciousness, whereа
information is not. (b) Conceptual meaning is compositional, whereas procedurall
not.

## pic – 113 Accessibility and Limitations of Relevance Theory

The degree of relevance is related to Contextual effects and processing eff
ude such things as adding new information, strengthening or contradicting an e
kening old information. The more contextual effects, the greater the relevance
nnected to anything already known is not worth processing, whereas a new fact
dy known is worth processing.

As far as the processing effort is concerned, the theory says that the less effo
the greater the relevance. The speaker assumes which facts are accessible for t
a way that the hearer can make the correct inferences without too much effort
etation of an utterance is chosen by the hearer, and the speaker assumes that th
ble for the hearer. The hearer interprets what is said by finding an accessible c
ximum amount of new information with the minimum amount of processing

imitations of Relevance Theory are: This theory says nothing about inter
ultural or social dimensions, such as age, gender, status, and nationality. An

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# IMPLICATURE – I

## Topic – 114 What Is Implicature?

The term **"Implicature"** accounts for what a speaker can imply, suggest or mea what the speaker literally says (Grice, 1975). Implicature - "any meaning conveyed inc hints, and understood implicitly without ever being explicitly stated" (Grundy, 2000). It of verbs such as 'imply, suggest, mean', which refer to the meaning of an utterance a given context.

Implicature: a neology by Paul Grice (1913- 1988) - British language philo remarkable contributions to the field of pragmatics. His most influential work relates speaker meaning and his account of conversational implicature. The fact that "what w what we clearly mean often differ is intuitively obvious but difficult to describe or expla was the driving force behind Grice's work. He was interested in developing a system how and why literal and intended meaning differs. Implicatures are context-dependent

## Topic – 115 Conversational Implicature

Conversational Implicature is implied by the speaker in making an utteranc content of the utterance; it does not contribute to direct (or explicit) utterance content, a by the linguistic meaning of what has been uttered. For example, Sara: *will you eat son cake?* Amna: *I'm on a diet.* Here, Amna asserts that she is on a diet, and implicates tha Conversational Implicature is a subset of the implications of an utterance: namely th utterance content.

## Topic – 116 Generalized Conversational Implicature

In **generalized conversational implicature** - "no special background knowle of utterance is required in order to make the necessary inferences" (Yule, 1996). It implicature that is inferable without reference to a special context (glossary of E common example in English involves the expressions with the form an X, usually i closely related to the speaker or subject, as in the following expression: John walked int and saw a tortoise. This expression implies that the house is not John's house.

## Topic – 117 Scalar Implicature

A **scalar implicature** is a quantity implicature based on the use of an informa in an implicational scale. Scalar implicatures arise in examples e.g. 'Some professors the speaker's use of 'some' typically indicates that s/he had reasons not to use a mor e.g. 'all'. Some professors are famous, therefore, gives rise to the implicature that nc

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famous. Similarly, in the utterance, 'Some of the boys went to the party', the word 'som all of the boys went to the party."

Classic examples of scales include numerals (< ... three, two, one>), moda possibly>, <must, should, may>), connectives (<and, or>), adverbs (<always, often, some adjectives (<hot, warm>) and verbs of ranking (<know, believe>, <love, like>) or con finish >).

## Topic – 118 Particularized Conversational Implicature

Particularized conversational implicatures (PCIs) are the inferences which are wor drawing totally on the specific context of the utterance. Most of the time, our conversations a very specific context in which locally recognized inferences are assumed (Yule, 2002).

Consider an example:

A: I' m going to the prison tomorrow.

B: Will 200 Dollars do?

context: A is visiting a prison and proposing to B to help in funding the shopping for that pris

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# IMPLICATURE – II

## Topic – 119 Properties of Conversational Implicature

Cancellability is one of the properties of conversational implicature. It as defeasibility. Presence of a conversational implicature relies on a number of fa conventional meaning of words used, the linguistic and situational contexts, etc. So if any the implicature will also change.

**Non-detachability** - a conversational implicature is attached to the semantic said, not to the linguistic form i.e. it is possible to use a synonym and keep the implica not be detached from the utterance as a whole, even though the specific words may be

**Reinforceability** - Implicatures can be reinforced, e.g. John answered most of he wasn't able to answer the last question. (not redundant)

**Non-conventionality** - implicature is not carried by what is said, but only by is said, or by 'putting it that way.'

**Calculability** – speakers try to convey conversational implicatures and h understand them suggests that implicatures are calculable.

## Topic – 120 Conventional Implicature

Conventional implicature is not based on the cooperative principle or the ma have to occur in a conversation. They do not depend on special contexts for their interp they are associated with specific words that result in additional conveyed meaning English conjunction 'but' is one of these words.

The interpretation of any utterance of the type 'p but q' will be based on the c plus an implicature of 'contrast' between the information in 'p' and the information in words such as 'even' and 'yet' also have conventional implicatures.

## Topic – 121 Properties of Conventional Implicature

Following are the properties of Conventional Implicature.

**Non-truth-conditionality** - conventional implicature do not make any c conditions e.g. *a) we want peace and they want war. b) we want peace but they want w* shares the same truth conditions. **Conventional implicature** is associated with speake than a sentence. **Conventional implicatures** are not derived from Grice's Cooperati component maxims but are attached by convention to a particular lexical item or lin

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They are, therefore, an arbitrary part of the meaning, and must be learned 'ad hoc'. Convent **implicatures** are not calculable via any natural procedure but are rather given by convention, thus must be stipulated. They are not cancelable i.e. they cannot be defeated. They are (arguably) detac because they are depending on the particular linguistic items used.

**Topic – 122 Strong Implicature**

**Strong implicature** is a communicated implication of an utterance which is the communicative point of the utterance. The idea is that sometimes a speaker intends that her hearer gr particular implication without which the utterance would not be relevant. Bill's utterance has a s implicature:

Albert: Can you give me a hand with this work?

Bill: I've a huge amount of my own work to do, and I promised the boss I'd give it priority.

If Albert does not understand that Bill is implicating that he can't help him then he has misse ıain point of Bill's utterance. **Strong implicature** is implicature that is related directly by the sp tterances or is that premises and conclusions which the hearer is strongly encouraged but not actu )rced to supply.

**opic – 123 Weak Implicature**

Weak Implicature is a communicated implication of an utterance which is not by itself the n )mmunicative point of the utterance. The idea is that for some utterances a hearer can understand wh eaker is trying to communicate even if he fails to get one or more implicatures. Weak implicature is eaker the encouragement, and the wider the range of possibilities among which the hearer can cho e weaker the implicatures. For example, *John: What are you planning to do today? Mary: I'm tired*

There is no single implicature which the hearer must take Mary to be communicating in orde derstand her utterance here. Instead, there are several assumptions that he might supply as an implica emise, each of which would lead to a different implicature e.g. If Mary is tired, she doesn't want to . The weaker the implicature, the less responsibility the speaker takes for their truth, i.e. the more t the responsibility of the hearer.

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# DEIXIS- I

## c – 124 What Is Deixis?

Any linguistic form that we use to accomplish this task of 'pointing out' is called
essions. When you notice a strange object and ask, 'What is that?', you are using a deictic expre
to indicate something in the immediate context. Deixis is also called indexical expressions
ion of indexical expressions is to tell us where to look for a reference. This reference is mostly r
articular person, place or time.

Deixis is also known as the 'Indexicality of language' as it operates as indexes of specific me
ontext. These are the common words in our language that can't be interpreted at all if we don't
ntext, especially, the physical context e.g. spatial deixis (here, there, this, that), temporal deixis
person deixis (you, me, she, him), etc.

Some modifiers with deictic reference are used alongside referring expressions su
nstrative pronouns, as in 'this dog', 'that woman', 'these tables', 'those helicopters', in order t
ocutors identify the particular referents of referring expression.

## – 125 Spatial Deixis

Spatial deixis are used to indicate the relative location of people and things. Also known as
Some pure place deictic words are: here and there (adverbs); this and that (demonst
ns).

A deictic projection is accomplished via dramatic performance when we use direct spe
nt the person, location and feelings of someone or something else e.g. while visiting a pet
was looking at this little puppy in a cage with such a sad look on its face. It was like, 'oh, I
y here, will you set me free?' The 'here' of the cage is not the actual physical location of the
g the words, but the location of that person performing in the role of the puppy.

Pragmatic basis of spatial deixis is actually psychological distance. Physically close objec
be treated by the speaker as psychologically close. Sometimes, speaker marks physically
generally, as psychologically distant e.g. that man over there. However, a speaker may als
ing physically close as psychologically distant e.g. (a perfume being sniffed by the speaker)
t'.

## - 126 Person Deixis

**Person Deixis** an expression used to point to a person (me, you, him, them) is an exan
deixis. Person deixis operates on a basic three part division, exemplified by the pronouns f

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person ("I , me, mine"), second person (you, your, yours), and third person (he, she
includes at least two persons: First person = speaker and Second person = addressee.

Usually, the third person is not grammatically marked, because the only two p
are the first person and the second person. It is possible to have deictic pronouns for t

There is, in English, a **potential ambiguity** in the uses which allows two diff
There is an **exclusive** 'we' (speaker plus other(s), excluding addressee), and, **Inclusiv**
addressee included). For instance, the **inclusive-exclusive** distinction may also be no
between saying, 'Let's go' (to some friends), and, 'Let us go' (to someone who has
and friends. The action of going is inclusive in the first, but exclusive in the second.

## Topic – 127 Social Deixis

**Social deixis** is concerned with the codification of the social status of the spea
third person or entity referred to as well as the social relationships holding between the
Fillmore 1997; Manning 2001). It may include social class, kin relationship, age, s
ethnic group.

"The pronoun systems of some languages also grammaticalize the informati
identities or relationships of the participants in the conversation" , Levinson (1983) ca
a social deixis. Social deixis refers to expressions which clearly encode social meanin
i.e. social status is indexicalized through the linguistic terms, for example, 'Madam',
'Doctor'.

Social relations concern the relation between the speaker and the addressee. S
accomplished by a wide range of linguistic devices including personal pronouns (mark
marking of kinship relations), forms of address (Ali, Sir, Madam etc.), affixes, clitics a
forms attached to intimacy, formality etc.) and the choice of vocabulary.

## Topic – 128 Temporal Deixis

Temporal deixis is also known as 'time deixis'. It is concerned with the encodin
points and spans relative to the time at which an utterance is produced in a speech act
cludes time adverbs e.g. now, then, soon, last week, today, tonight, yesterday, tomo
dicates both the time coinciding with speaker's utterance and the time of the speaker's v

However, 'then' applies to both past as in (a) and future in (b) time relative to the
e, e.g. (a) November 22nd, 1963? I was in Scotland then. (b) Dinner at 8:30 on Satur
then. Temporal deictic expressions e.g. yesterday, next week, last week etc.
rpretation on knowing the relevant utterance time.

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# DEIXIS- II

## Topic – 129 Discourse Deixis

**Discourse deixis** is also called text deixis. In **discourse deixis**, there are words that make refe some statement or utterance to point to the current, preceding or following utterances in the same sp r written discourse, e.g. 'the next chapter', 'in the last paragraph', etc. (Haung, 2014). There are ords and phrases, in English, that indicate the relationship between utterance and the prior discourse : but, therefore, in conclusion, to the contrary, still, however, anyway, well, besides, actually, all i , after all, etc.

Some languages have morphemes that mark such discourse notions. According to Levi 983), a major function of the utterances-initial usage of these words is to indicate that there is a rel tween the utterance that contains them and some portion of the prior discourse. According to L 977); Fillmore (1997); Diessel (1999), discourse deixis can be said to refer to propositions. The u course deictics can be found in most, if not all, languages in the world.

## pic – 130 Deictic Reference

Deictic Reference is the use of gestures or other means of pointing to specify an ambig rance, for instance, pointing at a place in a map and saying "here." This property of language is c lexicality', and the lexical items that encode context in the way are called 'deictics'. Indexical: the ontext in helping to determine reference

For instance, if in a lecture, I were to deliver (2), the three stressed 'yous' in the second part c ance would be accompanied by gestures and/or eye contact of some kind. Each would pick rent referent whose identity would be known only by those present at the time of my utterance ) 'you' has a much more general the reference,

In fact, being present when the sentence was uttered would not help you to identify a refe , this generalized use of 'you' is sometimes said to be non-deictic.

## c – 131 Deictic Center

**Deictic Center** is when we hear a deictic, we typically make a number of assumptions abou xt. For instance, when we hear an utterance like 'The postbox is on the left' we have to decide wh stbox is on the left in relation to the speaker or the hearer. The default deictic center is the spea on at the time of utterance.

Sometimes, the context itself is sufficient to prompt the addressee to draw the inference that n' rather than 'the speaker's location' in the deictic center. For instance, if Ali is the hider in a e-and-seek, and gives a clue to seeker by calling out 'behind the tree' it is to be hoped th ice will be made here. It is very common for the speaker to update the deictic center in more exte rse.

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**ic – 132 The Limits of Indexicality**

**Fixedness of deictic center** poses a particular problem when we want to quote what others have to us. Imagine my son says to my daughter: (1) *Why don't you want to come to the park with me?*

When she reports his utterance to me, she has a choice of several ways to represent this deictic erty as: (2) Eddie said, why don't you want to come to the park with me? (3) Eddie asked why I didn't to come to the park with him. (4) Eddie complained that I didn't want to go to the park with him.

In (3) the deictic center is partly projected from Eddie's original perspective – she encodes this ction in her use of 'I' and 'him' and 'didn't' while her retention to 'come' is still faithful to the deictic r of Eddie's utterance. Reported speech, like in (4), is important evidence of the existence of an rked deictic center, which as (1) and (4) show, is that of speaker's perspective even when the speaker resenting the speech of another person.

The identification of this fixed center reveals an important pragmatic principle i.e. we are able to ne shared knowledge and to foreground what is new in each particular utteranceso that what is new rs as a kind of figure in relation to the ground. Because of the role of assumed knowledge in nining reference, deictic referents are typically denotations with limited descriptive power.

Thus the pronouns 'you' and 'me' and 'us' are semantically empty tokens in the sense that they lescriptive power that the names of the people they refer to have.

**– 133 Raising Pragmatic Awareness** 3

In order to understand the relation of language to its point of origin, let's practice this activity. I a small group which includes at least one person with a good knowledge of a language other tha h. Ask this person to translate utterances containing a range of deictic phenomena into their othe ge and explain any problems or differences to you. 2)This exercise will work well in tutorial groups

Ask each member of the group to come with two consecutive sentences. These sentences can b from any book whose 'indexical properties' may be discussed. 3) this makes a good vacation tas

If you get the opportunity to travel, watch out for uses of deictics that surprise you. If you aren travel, try to mix with unfamiliar groups and see how they use 'we' to show membership, or liste uses of 'this' and 'that' to encode psychological distance.

Try to note down exactly what you heard or read and then report it to your tutorial group at t eeting of new term. 4) Identify an occasion when you might expect to hear a variety of deictic wa municating what appears to be the same message – in Britain, the announcements on trains a ing as each company, even individual announcers, tries to encode their own notion of the comm you and they share. Note down what you hear and present an analysis to your tutorial group.

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**A presupposition** is something the speaker assumes to be the case prior t Speakers, not sentences, have a presupposition. **An entailment** is something that what is asserted in the utterance. Sentences, not speakers, have entailments. We ca potentially assumed information associated with the utterance as in *1) Mary's broth*

Here, the speaker will normally be expected to have the presupposition tha exists and that she has a brother. A more specific presupposition is that Mary has o has a lot of money. All of these presuppositions are the speaker's and all of them ca

Whereas, the sentence in (1) will be treated as having the **entailments** that: N something, bought three animals, bought three horses, and many other similar logical entailments follow from the sentence, regardless of whether the speaker's beliefs a fact.

## Topic – 135 Types of Presupposition

**1) Existential Presupposition** is the assumption of the existence of the e speaker. They can be found in (i) Noun phrase, and (ii) Possessive constructions. F **phrase** - "The car was broken" (Presupposes that the existence of the entity it refers "Car "). (ii) **Possessive construction** – e.g. "Tom's car is new" (we can presuppose t that he has a car).

**2) Factive Presupposition** is the assumption that something is true due to th verbs such as "know", "realize" and "glad", etc. **(3) Non Factive Presupposition** refe is not true. **(4) Lexical Presupposition** is an assumption that, in using one word, the another meaning (word). Structural Presupposition - associated with the use of certain question constructions. The listener perceives that the information presented is n intended to be true by the speaker. **Counterfactual Presupposition** is an assum presupposed is not only untrue but is the opposite of what is true, or contrary to facts.

## Topic – 136 The Projection Problem

There is a basic expectation that the presupposition of a simple sentence will when that simple sentence becomes part of a more complex sentence. This is one ver idea that meaning of the whole sentence is a combination of the meaning of its parts.

However, the meaning of some presuppositions (as parts) doesn't survive to be of some complex sentences (as wholes), this is known as projection problem. look imagined that Kelly was ill and nobody realized that she was ill.

r & p >> Not q

At this point, after combining r & p, the presupposition q can no longer be as This is an example of projection problem in presupposition.

## Topic – 137 Ordered Entailments

Crystal (1998: 136) defines entailment as "a term refers to a relation between a uch that the truth of the second sentence necessarily follows from the truth of the first. F

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see a **dog**. I can see an **animal.** Generally speaking, entailment is not a pragmatic concept nothing to do with the speaker's intended meaning.

It is considered a purely logical concept, symbolized by II- Examples of entailment for the [1 below in [2]:

[1] Rover chased three squirrels. (=p)

[2] a. Something chased three squirrels. (= q)

b. Rover did something to three squirrels. (= r)

c. Rover chased three of something. (= s)

d. Something happened. (= t)

In representing the relationship of entailment between [1] and [2a] as p II- q, w symbolized a logical sequence. Let us say that in uttering the sentence [1], the speaker committed to the truth of a very large number of background entailments (some are prese On any occasion of utterance [1], however, the speaker will indicate how these entailm ordered. That is, the speaker will communicate, typically by stress, which entailment is as the foreground, or more important for interpreting intended meaning, than any others.

## Topic – 138 Presupposition in the Real World

You may have noticed that small children acquiring English as a first language an language learners frequently produce utterances like, 1. 'I have locked the door so someor in' rather than 'I have locked the door so no one gets in'. Similarly, see the use of 'some' an

**Example 2:**

Waiter: Would you like something to drink?

Lady: <reading>

Waiter: Madam would you like something to drink

Lady: Sorry

Waiter: Something to drink

Lady: Yes, please I'd like coffee.

The use of 'someone' in example 1, and the use of 'something to drink' in example istential presupposition in a way that 'anything to drink' doesn't. It is, therefore, more in ason, the hospitable host asks whether guests would like 'some more x' rather than 'any

'Anything' is also less inviting for another reason that it is a negative polarity item v cur in negative or hypothetical constructions (conditionals, interrogatives, etc.). B

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# SPEECH ACTS THEORY

## 'opic – 139 Introduction to Speech Acts

Speech act theory is similar to physical acts. People also perform acts by using language ive orders, to make requests, to give warnings or to give advice, etc. It aims to answer this What do we do when using language?"

Speech acts are acts of communication (such as an apology, complaint, compliment etc.) t here' may be a 'request' instead of mere information about weather. Every time a speake ntence, he attempts to accomplish something with the words. Specifically, he intends to have so the listener and he wants the listener to recognize this intention. Speaker and hearer are usual this process by the context called speech events; determine the interpretation of an utt rforming a particular speech act.

**Explicit performatives** are performative utterances that contain a performative verb t plicit what kind of act is being performed and tend to begin with a first person singular 'I' **rformatives** are performative utterances in which there is no such verb. Constatives – are the s t attempt to describe reality and can be judged true or false.

## pic – 140 Austin's Speech Act Theory

The work of J. L. Austin-How to Do Things with Words - led philosophers to pay more the non-declarative uses of language. The terminology he introduced, especially th cutionary act", "illocutionary act", and "perlocutionary act", occupied an important role in n to become the "study of speech acts". For instance, (1) I bet you six pence it will rain tom ologize. (3) I sentence you to ten years of hard labor. (4) I give my word.

These sentences are not used to describe some states of affairs, but to do certain things logize, to pass sentence, and to promise, respectively. Facets of a speech act are Locutiona ocutionary Act. and illocutionary act.3

## ic – 141 Soarle's Speech Act Theory

Searle (1976), proposed that all acts fall into following five main types: **Representati** peakers to the truth of the expressed proposition – state what the speaker believes to be e.g. asserting, concluding, statements of fact) 'The earth is flat'. (statement of fact). **Dir** ipts by the speaker to get the addressee to do something – what the speaker wants ( tioning). **Commissives** commit the speaker to some future course of action – what s nising, threatening, offering, refusing). **Expressives** express a psychological state or wha (thanking, apologizing, welcoming, congratulating). **Declarations** effect immediate cha utional state of affairs and which tend to rely on elaborate extra-linguistic institutions ring war, firing from employment). These speech acts change the world via their utteranc

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## Topic – 142 Felicity Conditions

In everyday contexts, there are general conditions on the participants, for exam
understand the language being used and they are not being nonsensical. Then there are c
for example, for both a promise and a warning, the content of the utterance must be abo
For a promise, the preparatory conditions are significantly different from those of for a

When the speaker promises to do something, there are two preparatory condition
will not happen by itself. Second, the event will have a beneficial effect. When the
warning, there are the following preparatory conditions: It is not clear that the hearer kno
occur. The speaker does think the event will occur. The event will not have a beneficial

## Topic – 143 Direct and Indirect Speech Acts

In everyday situations, we often do not directly express what we intend, but instea
utterances in ways which appear more polite to hearers. That utterance can be direct speec
speech acts. For example: Pass me the salt! Can you pass me the salt?

Distinction between these speech acts is based on their structure. Whenever t
relationship between a structure and a function, we have a direct speech act. Whenever the
relationship between a structure and a function, we have an indirect speech act. A declarati
a statement is a direct speech act, but used to make a request is an indirect speech act.

One of the most common types of indirect speech acts in English has the form of a
Examples of Direct Speech Act - when a specific sentence structure performs its direct fun
at the pizza?' **Interrogative – Question,** 'Eat the pizza' (please)! **Imperative – Comm**
You ate the pizza' is **Declarative – Statement**

1/3

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# SPEECH ACTS AND SOCIETY

## Topic – 144 Social Dimensions

Indirect speech acts constitute one of many forms of politeness. Indirectness is so much as with a politeness that directives are more often expressed as interrogatives than imperatives. especially the case with people with whom one is not familiar. In many British restaurants, boo and petrol stations, a general sign says "thank you for not smoking". The expressive thanking sp is presumably used because it sounds more polite and friendly to all the strangers reading the sign impersonal directive prohibiting "No smoking".

The other factors that can make speaker use indirect directives, in addition to lack of fam are the reasonableness of the task, the formality of the context and social distance (difference o roles, age, gender, education, class, occupation, and ethnicity). Social distances can give speakers and authority and it is generally those of the less dominant role and so on who tend to use indirect

## Topic – 145 Cultural Dimensions

Speech acts and their linguistic realizations are culturally bound. The ways of expressing acts vary from country to country and from culture to culture. In India, for example, the expressive ict of praising and congratulating a person on their appearance can be realized by the words such as: at you are!" because the weight is an indicator of personality and health in a country where t nalnutrition.

In Britain, these words express 'deploring' or 'criticizing', since the fashion and diet ndustries, and possibly health education have conditioned many into thinking that "slim is beau ifferences in speech acts can cause difficulties cross-culturally.

## opic – 146 Limitations of Speech Act Theory

When we try to categorize utterances in terms of speech acts, we often find that there is 'ove at one utterance can fall into more than one macro- class.

Utterances such as 'so there you go' and 'you know' amount to filters that say very little; thi semantic contents makes it difficult to put in any of the classifications, as neither expressiv resentatives speech acts. Another similar example could be related to "Backchannel" and "feedb responses that show that the hearer is listening and encouraging a speaker to continue talking, su s it?' and 'oh really' do not fit neatly into the speech act model either.

Similarly, see incomplete sentences as: 'But she didn't do the – er – no' does not fit neatly category. A lot of what we say in everyday speech is left unfinished either because we have no omplete the sentence or because we are interrupted.

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# POLITENESS THEORY

## Topic – 149 What is Politeness Theory?

Politeness generally refers to the ideas like being tactful, modest and pragmatics, politeness can be defined as showing awareness and consideration (Yule, 2010). "Politeness means having or showing good manners and respect fo (Wehmeier 2000, p. 976).

According to Yule (2010), politeness can be treated as a fixed concept, social behavior', or etiquette, within a culture. Within interaction, a specified type for which we need the concept of 'Face' – public self-image of a person – emot self that one expects everyone else to recognize. For example, 'Don't impose' – but.... is a polite way. Politeness may not always be a matter of words but how y

## Topic – 150 Face Wants

Within everyday social interactions, people generally behave as if their their public self-image, or their face wants, will be respected. **Face-threate** something that represents a threat to another person's self-image, that is called a 'Give me that paper'.

**Face-saving Act** gives the possibility that some action might be interprete face, the speaker can say something to lessen the possible threat, e.g. 'Could yo 'I'm dying for a drink. Yes, it's really hot. Isn't it?' In situations where a face-thr arise, the politeness strategy used will depend largely on the relationship betw listener.

FTAs are sometimes unavoidable in conversation; they can damage the f to because it opposes her wants or needs. An FTA can be either a positive or nega the speaker or the hearer.

**Positive face-threatening acts** are a direct challenge to the face of the indifference to the listener's self-image and include things such as threats, i listener. **Negative face-threatening acts** occur when the speaker impinges on th The speaker requires a verbal response or an action from the person s/he is addre

## Topic – 151 Negative and Positive Face

Under politeness theory, there is a positive and a negative face. **Positive** have one's self-image approved of by others. It is the need to be connected, to b

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the group whereas, here, negative doesn't mean 'bad'. Negative is simply the op
**Negative face** is the need to be independent and free from imposition.

Independence refers to a person's right not to be dominated by others – to ac
individuality or autonomy (e.g. by giving people options, by apologizing for
Involvement refers to the need people have to be involved with others and to show
person's right to be considered a normal, contributing, and supporting member of a so
agreeing with them, showing our interest in someone, etc.) Politeness strategies will
whether a person is dealing with another's positive or negative face.

Face and politeness vary from society to society and culture to culture (e.g.
space and independence; parents' interference in the domestic affairs of adult chil
places).

## Topic – 152 Say Something: Off and On Record

**Off record** is when you decide to say something, you simply produce staten
I forgot my pen. [b] Hmm, I wonder where I put my pen. These type of stateme
addressed to the other and the other can act as if the statements have not even been
indirect statements are technically described as being off-record. They might be re
Indirect statement involves the speaker requesting something without directly asking
The approach is more deferential and places the burden on the speaker. For examp
comment on something that needs to be done rather than asking the listener to do it d

Bald **on-record** – where you can directly address the other as a means of exp
The most direct approach, using imperative forms is known as bald on record. For i
directly asked: [a] Give me a pen. [b] Lend me your pen. Bald on record forms n
expressions like 'please' and 'would you?' which serve to soften the demand and callec

Generally speaking, bald on record expressions are associated with speec
peaker assumes that he or she has power over the other (e.g. in military contexts)
ther's behavior with words.

## Topic – 153 Positive and Negative Politeness

A **positive politeness** strategy leads the requester to appeal to a common go
a expressions such as: [a] How about letting me use your pen? [b] Hey, buddy, I'd a
t me use your pen. These expressions do represent a greater risk for the refusal. It m
me 'getting to know you' talk, designed to establish the necessary common ground

For instance, 'Hi. How's it going? Okay if I sit here? We must be interested
iff. You take a lot of notes too, huh? Say, do me a big favor and let me use one of yo
sitive politeness is a strategy used when the speaker is at least familiar with the lis
person's status while also acknowledging the familiarity.

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**Negative politeness** is also used when speakers know they are impi
want to show respect. For example, stopping a person on the street for ir
requires negative politeness.

## Topic – 154 Politeness Strategies

**Solidarity strategy** is the tendency to use positive politeness, empha
speaker and the hearer. It will include personal information, use of nicknam
terms (particularly among males), and shared dialect or slang expressions.
marked via inclusive terms such as 'we' and 'let's', for example in the party
let's go to the party. Everyone will be there. We'll have fun'.

**Deference strategy** is the tendency to use negative politeness form
right to freedom. A deference strategy is involved in what is called 'formal
as if nothing is shared, and can include expressions that refer to neither the
'Customers may not smoke here, sir'.

The language associated with this strategy emphasizes the speaker's
This independence is marked via an absence of personal claims, as in an alte
invitation: There's going to be a party if you can make it. It will be fun. Thes
are illustrated here via utterances which are actually central to the speech ever

**Pre-sequences** is an assumption says that face is typically at risk whe
**Pre-request** is a way to avoid this risk. It can help to know the answer either
response in these sentences (a) Him: Are you busy? (=pre-request), (b) Her: O
children often use **pre-announcements** to check if their parents are willing to

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## Topic – 155 Form and Function

Politeness is a pragmatic phenomenon; it lies not in the form and th their function and the intended social meaning. Let's consider following examp but the intention is not. So, if, you'd be as kind as to shut up, I'd appreciate it If the speaker uses more polite forms than the context requires, hearer migl intention other than that of redressing a face-threatening act (FTA).

Another example of an inappropriate use of polite forms is the man's wonder if you could possibly let me have my seat back?', meant to entertain who is not the same as deference, which is a polite form expressing distance from a higher status. It is rare to find it grammatically signaled in English, although it is as 'Sir' and 'Madam'.

## Topic – 156 Situational Context

Politeness is influenced by the elements of the context. There are two si that influence the way that we make a request. One is the size of imposition reasonableness of the task, and the rule seems to be 'the greater the imposition language is'. For example, to borrow a large amount of money, one might employ other negative politeness phenomena, as in: 'I couldn't borrow Rs.50,000/-, coul right now?' On the other hand, to borrow a small sum, one's request could be bald me 10 rupees.'

The second factor is the formality of the context, and here the tenden formality, the more indirect language is' whereas, a student sitting informally in the coffee might stop a colleague from interrupting her with a direct directive bald on r 'Hang on – I haven't finished!'.

To Heritage (1984), a speaker's action is context-shaped in that its contri sequence of actions cannot be understood except by reference to the context. This utterances is a major and unavoidable procedure which hearers use to rely on to inte contributions.

## Topic – 157 Social Context

The choice of the politeness formulation depends on the social distance and etween speakers. When there is social distance, politeness in encoded and there is hen there is less social distance, there is less negative politeness and indirectn termine social distance are: *degree of familiarity and differences of status, roles, age,* ss, *occupation and, ethnicity.*

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The degree of familiarity is that speakers know each other, do not need to use p
if they use them, it can imply quite opposite of politeness. It is those of the lower statu
role and so on who use more indirectness and more negative politeness features, s
mitigation, than those with higher status and so on do. Expressions with bald on record
who assume that they have got power.

## Topic – 158 Cultural Context

According to Tannen (1994), the use of indirectness can hardly be understoo
ultural perspective'. For example, in Cuba, friends should not show any distance at a
ou' for a cup of coffee, 'maximizing praise of other', can cause offense as it appears

Thomas (1995) mentions that Chinese hosts will choose a guest's menu fo
hoicest pieces' on their plate, to show positive politeness. Similarly, in some Weste
mands a specific excuse, if speakers are to avoid threatening positive face and 'mi
ier', whereas, in other cultures, this is not necessary.

## pic – 159 Applying Politeness

Here is an activity for the students. You are supposed to find **requesting strat**
more direct to the more indirect ones: [Can you……..?], [Do you think you could
could……..?], [Could you……..?], [I wonder if you could……..?], [Would you..
possible for you to……?]

If the strategies presented do not appear appropriately contextualized it may b
to use them. If a context is provided the learner has a better idea of how and wh
mple: To find out different pragmatic parameters involved behind all these pragm
nswers to these questions: [1) Where are the people?], [2) What is the relationshi

Moreover, meanings emerge from the discoursal context where politeness stra
mple, take the following dialogue:

THER: What sort of time do you call this?], [Boy: I'm sorry.], [FATHER: So yo
], [Buy: Oh Dad, do stop nagging. I'm over seventeen. It's up to me what time I co
while you are living here, it isn't. Anyway, what on earth were you doing until
: We weren't doing anything. We were just talking.], [FATHER: I was worried
stly, Dad, I really am sorry, but you don't have to wait up for me, you know……

Find out that what type of politeness strategies are used in this dialogue? Als
cord, off record, positive politeness/negative politeness techniques.



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## Topic – 160 What Is Conversational Analysis?

Conversational analysis looks at ordinary everyday spoken discourse ar people manage their interactions. It is the study of social interaction embracing b conduct in everyday life. It is a rigorous investigation of features of a convers and constructed, how it operates, what its distinguishing features are, and how p own meanings in the conversational situation. Conversations are multi-layered/l different levels of meaning within a text. It also looks at the contents, sequence the conversation.

In this analysis, we study how speakers decide when to speak during utterances of two are related, and different functions that conversation is conversational analysis include, turn-taking, pauses, overlaps and backcha preference structures, and sequences expansion.

## Topic – 161 Turn-Taking

Turn-taking operates in accordance with a local management system that by the members of a social group. This system is essentially a set of conventions f them, or giving them away; it is needed most at those points where there is a pos the turn. Turn-taking can be applied to conversations where speakers cooperate anc Also be applied to conversations where there is competition, fighting to keep th others from getting it.

Moreover, different cultures have their own preferences as to how long a s floor, how they indicate that they have finished and another speaker can take the flo Americans have pauses of a fraction of a second and it is socially acceptable to whereas North American Indians expect a two-second pause between turns, and unacceptable to interrupt.

## Topic – 162 Pauses, Overlaps and Backchannels

When two people attempt to have a conversation and discover that there is rhythm to their transition, much more is being communicated than is said; there is a absence of familiarity or ease.

Here, very short pauses (marked with a dash) are simply hesitations, but l silence; the silences are not attributable to either speaker because each has completed lines in this example illustrated overlaps, conventionally marked by a double slash (/ the overlapping talk. Typically, the first overlap occurs as both speakers attempt to i

In accordance with the local management system, one speaker will stop to al the floor. **Backchannels** are head nods, smiles and other facial expressions and gestu hearer is listening. These types of signals (uh – uh, yeah, mmm) provide feedback to that the message is being received; known as backchannel signals or simply backcha

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<antics and Pragmatics (ENG508) VU

pic – 163 Adjacency Pairs

A sequence of two related utterances by two different speakers' is known as adjacency pairs. The ond utterance is always a response to the first. For instance: [A: You left the light on.], [B: It wasn't ], [the sequence of complaint-denial = is an adjacency pair].

Types of Adjacency pairs are question-answer, greeting-greeting, Invitation or offer- ptance/non-acceptance, complaint-apology/denial, summons-response, request-acceptance, promis anks-acknowledgement, and goodbye-goodbye.

An insertion sequence is one adjacency pair within another; a number of insertion sequences ca finite, but the limit of human memory does not allow that. Delay in response marks potenti ilability of the immediate expected answer; it represents the distance between what is expected a is provided.

– 164 Preference Structure

Adjacency pairs represent social actions, and not all social actions are equal when they occu parts of some pairs, for example, [a question], [a partial answer], [a statement of ignorance] of the relevance of the question.], [a denial of its presupposition.]. For instance: [What does Joe iving?], [Do you need to know?], [Oh, this and that.], [I've no idea.], [What's that got to do v le does not do anything.]

A first part that contains a request or an offer has an expectation that the second part will b ance; structurally more likely than refusal. This structural likelihood is called **prefere** cally, preference is an observed pattern in talk and not a personal wish. Preference structure di parts into preferred (structurally expected next act) and dis-preferred (structurally unexpected ial acts.

165 Sequences

Conversation analysts claim that as speakers are mutually constructing and negotiating ation in time, certain sequences, which are stretches of utterances or turns, emerge. These iences, insertion sequences, and opening and closing sequences.

**Pre-sequences** are the opening sequences that are used to set up some specific potential ations are opened in socially recognized ways. In the beginning of the conversation s greet each other, e.g. when two office workers meet in the morning: Ali: [Morning, Sa [Hi. How's it going?], Ali: [Oh, can't complain, I guess. Ready for the meeting this afte [Well, I don't have much choice!]

Greetings exemplify opening sequences, utterances that ease people into a conversati ie message "I want to talk to you". There are **pre-invitations** (I've got two tickets for th re-requests (are you busy right now?) and pre-announcements (You'll never guess!).

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# CULTURE AND LANGUAGE LEARNING



## ic – 166 Cross-cultural Pragmatics

Cross cultural pragmatics is a subfield of pragmatics. Kasper and Blum-Kulka (1993) defined
e study of linguistic acts by language users from different cultural backgrounds. Cross-cu
matics aims at understanding the extent to which non-shared knowledge or in simple term
nas affect or modify the retrieval of intended meaning.

CCP looks at issues outside classrooms and concentrates on environments where participan
plicitly learners, but rather full members of the target language community. In pragmatics, "cul
Culture, with a capital C – that is, the literature, music, and art. Rather, it is culture as a reflecti
lues and beliefs about the world, held by the members of a community which forms, in effec
atum of their everyday life.

CCP investigates how human behavior is translated into instances of language in use. Res
own that a speaker's intended meaning, mediated by linguistic symbols, may be interpret
erpreted in cross-cultural contexts due to each interactant's own norms of interpretation.
es behaviors that are manifest or overt and others that are latent or covert. The values and be
bedded in talk both at the micro and the macro level. Micro features include prosodic cues,
indirectness, nonverbal cues, etc.

## - 167 Intercultural Pragmatics

Intercultural pragmatics is based on the socio-cognitive approach according to which, our
imultaneously both in the head and in the world. **Cross-cultural** comparative studies of disc
own that rules of appropriateness vary across cultures. Thus, for learners to become truly effe
nicators in a second language, they need to acquire these rules of appropriateness in additic
have come to call linguistic competence.

Modern language courses include elements of 'communicative competence' (Hymes, 19
g them with knowledge about and experience in using the sociocultural rules of the new langu
ural pragmatics studies speech acts across various cultures to study how language is manife
ety and is a medium of differentiation between different cultures. The difference in culture ca
r of intercultural failures such as socio-pragmatic failure and pragma-linguistic failure.

## 168 Inter-language Pragmatics

**nterlanguage pragmatics** focuses on the pragmatic development of second/ foreign langu
s they seek to become proficient, successful users of the target language. ILP may be consid
a of second language acquisition (SLA) and thus is inherently anchored in acquisition cont

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Learners and teachers need to understand interlanguage pragmatics (ILP) to fa
of how people comprehend and communicate meaning beyond what is said in t

The **interlanguage** is a reduced system at the early stages of developme
intermediate, dynamic, and transient linguistic systems that, according to the th
over time as learners move closer and closer to attaining native-like proficiency.
a trajectory towards their desired goal, sometimes regressing and sometimes ma
instance, in academic speaking skills, the learners may struggle with conversatio
with a native speaker.

Learner language use is informed by underlying systems that overlap a
revised by learners, usually out of awareness, as long as there are regular expos
essentially interested in how L2 learners use their developing abilities in L2 to co
despite gaps in their knowledge and socio-pragmatics of the L2.

## Topic – 169 Listener Behavior in CCP

One aspect of interactional talk is the relative lack of attention given to th
the co-construction of meaning in conversation. Yet it is important not only cr
within a pluricultural society.

Erickson and Schultz (1982) found that African-American students dis
listenership in less overt ways than those expected by the white counselors, even
gender differences. Listener cues are also called "back channel cues". Cues are belie
listener while the speaker, often in the context of telling a story or narrating recent e

Cultural values are attached to cues more explicitly in one culture than an
culture does transparently discuss the need for the listener to "chime in" in a patterne
cultural mismatches between interlocutors of different languages may arise regard
frequency of listener responses.

## Topic – 170 Referential Communication

Tarone and Swierzbin (2009: 68) chose to study how learners used language
given and new information to achieve effective referential communication: "E
ommunication is inherently interactive. Speakers must take into account any infor
ready has, and any information the listener needs to know in order to identify the e
". It is also an aspect of language use that depends on careful decisions by speakers
rms, for example, in Academic Speech Events.

Bardovi-Harlig and Hartford (1990, 1993) focused their analysis on status-pres
interactions between the advisors and advisees (international students) particula
ing where the pragmatic competence of native and non-native speakers of the L2 ar
he view that highly proficient nonnative speakers may lack the ability to negotia

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# COMPUTER SEMANTICS AND PRAGMAT

## Topic – 171 Computers and Linguistics

**Computer-Assisted Language Learning (CALL)** is defined as "the applications of the computer in language teaching and learning." (Levy, 1997: 1 range of activities which makes it difficult to describe it as a single idea or simple has come to encompass issues of materials design, technologies, pedagogical instruction.

**Computational Linguistics** on the other hand, is the study of langua perspective. CL is concerned with the study of computer systems for understandi language (Grisham, 1986). The process of dictionary making today is undergoi largely owing to advances in computers and the availability of machine-read known as corpora.

**Corpus linguistics** is the term used for compiling collections of texts language use. In this context, a corpus is a representative body of texts (corp 'body'). More recent corpora contain over 100 million words, and corpora of te being compiled. It is also very essential for twenty-first-century dictionary m ways, including speech recognition and artificial intelligence.

## Topic – 172 Computers Corpora and Semantics

**Computerized corpora** are useful to dictionary makers and others i language that are not apparent from mere introspection. For example, patterns of go together - are much more readily understood with the help of a computerized texts. Such patterns can be helpful in highlighting meanings, parts of speech, an frequency.

Further, while it may appear that synonymous words can be used in pla can show that it is not common for words to be readily substitutable for one a and small, big and large, and fast and quick are generally considered synonyms. of key word in context (KWIC) concordances for these pairs shows that they substitutable. Corpora help us understand the meaning and use of words.

## Topic – 173 Computers and the Study of Translation

For more than half a century researchers have been trying to craft between languages. Except in limited ways, however, that goal has eluded eve Word-for-word translation does not do the trick because, for one thing, lan orders and, for another, the metaphors of one language may not translate int another language.

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If a machine translation (MT) device were established for even six languages, then 6
of procedures would be needed to translate each language into all of the other five. It is a
system than interlingual translation model - in which the basic semantic elements of each lan
represented abstractly and then encoded into other languages. This would require twelve pro
decoding procedure and one encoding procedure for each of the six languages. This model is
the transfer translation model that requires 30 procedures.

Unfortunately, we don't know the extent to which sentences can be decomposed int
abstract semantic representations needed for an interlingual model, especially in making
neutral intermediate representation. Difficulties related to translation in either model conc
language encodes that another may not encode.

## Topic – 174 Computers and Pragmatics

As compared to morphological, lexical, phonological, grammatical, and semantic fea
he features of pragmatics have been less well explored in **computational linguistics.**

One reason for the relative neglect of pragmatics is that modeling the world kn
scourse knowledge that speakers rely on when producing and understanding texts
allenging than creating models of structural aspects of language. Another is that the kinc
atures by which some pragmatic categories are realized are not always expressed in ways t
n readily track. We have seen, speakers base some aspects of expression on their belie
dressees know and are thought to have in the forefront of their minds.

## pic – 175 Computers, Speech Acts and Conversation

It is necessary to create models of politeness, turn taking, and the other phenomen
he applications of computer technology to speech will be mastered. The building of corp
guage has proceeded more quickly than the compilation of spoken corpora, and the reaso

Especially in recent years, machine-readable texts initially published as books, n
spapers have been widely available, as is the Web. There are ways to develop corpora thi
ıods, for instance: scanners can effectively transform many older printed materials
able text.

ever, creating electronic representations of transcribed spoken language is quite a diff
of all, it must be captured, on audio or video. Then it must be transcribed - a challeng
ısive task, and one partly dependent on the quality of the recording and the degree of
original environment. Still, a substantial part of the British National Corpus is based
t one hundred volunteers throughout Britain carried recorders in a course



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## Topic – 176 Introduction to Information Structure

We use language to state one thing or other. It runs counter to our expectations c should be presented in a text. Somehow, it emphasizes the wrong elements or em elements at the wrong time. Speakers and writers are responsible for foregrounding ce back-grounding others, just as a painter uses contrasts of color, shape, and value to higl and deemphasize others.

In language texts, such highlighting and deemphasizing is called infor Unlike syntax and semantics, which are sentence-based aspects of language, information consideration of discourse - coherent sequences of sentences rather than isolated ones.

## Topic – 177 Given and New Information

Given information is information currently in the forefront of an addres information is information just being introduced into the discourse. Consider the fc interaction: Alina: [Who ate the biscuits?], [Maria: Hassan ate the biscuits.]

In Maria's answer, the noun phrase 'Hassan' represents new information becau introduced into the discourse. By contrast, 'the biscuits' in the reply is given informati be presumed to be in the mind of Alina who has introduced it in the previous turn. Give be realized in sentences in condensed form, e.g. instead of saying Hassan ate the biscuits, simply say Hassan did, Hassan did it, or Hassan.

A piece of information need not be explicitly mentioned in order for it to be the g Information is sometimes taken as given because of its close association with somethi introduced into the discourse. When a noun phrase is introduced into a discourse, all th referent can be treated as given information. For Example, when Kent returned my car l ank was nearly empty and the glove compartment was stuffed with candy wrappers.

## Topic – 178 Topics and Contrast

The topic of a sentence is its center of attention - what it is about and its point c tion of the topic is contrasted with the notion of comment, which is the element of a se mething about the topic. Given information in the sentence about which we say some pic; new information shows what we say about the topic, called the comment. For exa the biscuits' is offered in answer to the question 'What did Hassan do?' The topic wc ven information) and the comment would be 'ate the biscuits' (new information).

**Contrast** is a noun phrase is said to be contrastive when it occurs in opposition ase in the discourse. For example, Alan: Did Matt see the accident? Beth: No, Sara di h's answer is contrasted with Matt in Alan's question. The contrast of Beth's answ sible one in which the noun phrase would not be contrastive: Yes, he did. **Contrast** is ences that express the narrowing down of a choice from several candidates to one. In noun phrase that refers to the candidate thus chosen is marked contrastively.

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## Topic – 179 Definite and Referential Expressions

Among other reasons, speakers mark a noun phrase as 'definite' when they a
addressee can identify its referent. Otherwise, the noun phrase is marked as indefinite
Andrea: Who's at the door? Bundy: It's the neighbor. In this example, the definite no
neighbor' in Bundy's answer presupposes that Andrea can determine which neighbor Bu
bout. Bundy's answer is appropriate if she and Andrea have only one neighbor or have re
particular neighbor at the door. If they have several neighbors and Bundy cannot assum
ll be able to identify which neighbor is at the door, the answer to Andrea's question would
a neighbor.

**Proper nouns and pronouns** are generally definite. Pronouns such as 'you' and
to individuals who are identifiable in the discourse context. Definiteness in English is
e of articles (definite the versus indefinite 'a') or by demonstratives (this and that, t
nite noun phrases in English are marked by a or an (a furnace, an apartment buildi
e of any article (oil, fire, apartment buildings).

## - 180 Generic and Specific Expressions

Generic sentences express generalizations about kinds and are an important
sion of knowledge (Gelman, 2003). Consider the following pairs of sentences:

1) a. Tigers are striped.

Tigers are on the front lawn.

a. A tiger is striped. b. A tiger is on the front lawn.

a. The tiger is striped. b. The tiger is on the front lawn.

interpretation of the first sentence of each pair is intuitively quite differen
n of the second sentence in the pair. In the second sentences, we are talking
ers: a group of tigers in (1b), some individual tiger in (2b), and some unique salient
—a beloved pet, perhaps. In the first sentences, however, we are saying somethi
o particular tiger or tigers that we are talking about. A noun phrase may be generic
whether it refers to a category or to particular members of a category. For inst
bombardier beetle, which squirts a lethal mixture into the face of its enemy.] 2) [
rward and gingerly took a carrot from my palm.]

first example, the 'bombardier beetle' is generic because it refers to the set of all t
he second, which could have been uttered during a visit to a zoo, 'the giraffe'
al and is, thus, specific. In the first sentence, the bombardier beetle is generic an
nixture is generic and indefinite. In the second sentence, the giraffe is specific an
is specific and indefinite. Thus, the generic/ specific contrast differs
ite contrast.

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In the linguistic investigation, a favored method is to frame and test the hyp
quite arbitrary example, someone says to a two-year-old "Why don't you use your spoo
two-year-old obligingly picked up her spoon and tried to feed herself with it. Thus, it ca
at two-years-old can understand indirect speech acts.

We can imagine investigable topics that might be turned into testable hypothes
mbers show that they are displeased with one another by responding to propositio
the illocutionary force of each other's utterances, treating indirect speech acts as
t speech acts. For example, the case of two-years old to a series of direct and indi
rch method here involves following procedures: Frame a testable hypothesis su
vation about the way that world appears to work.

Here are the steps to investigate (1) designing an experiment that enables you to
's hypothesis, (ii) collecting the data under experimental conditions, (iii) quanti
o determine whether or not the hypothesis is proved, and (iv)considering the in
s and whether follow-up experiments would be useful.

Very often empirical research of this sort tries to determine whether there is
l to a chance, association between two variables. For example: whether there
ion between age and understanding of indirect speech acts as demonstrated by the
requests.

## 182 Collecting Data for Pragmatic Analysis

You may be collecting your data because you wish to test a hypothesis. Data
y designing the experiments very carefully to make sure that you are collecting
asure what you seek to measure rather than some other phenomenon.

his means that all the non-relevant variables need to be eliminated. It wouldn't
le, if a linguist measured two years old responses to indirect requests only to rea
sults reflected the extent to which the requests themselves were palatable. There
s' when it comes to data collection.

nilarly, if you tell your friends to have a natural conversation while you record
ything but a natural conversation. However, there is an ethical issue (i.e. not
y the informants without their consent).

her points to keep in mind are as following: Do a pilot study as it enables you
(a) audible and transcribable; and (b) useful of the purpose you have in mind. Or
l data on video but this is usually impractical. Another option is note the opening
l can be a foolproof method.

## 3 Transcription of Conversation

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Conventional transcriptions of conversations use a standard orthographic sc
ic transcription. They show how items e.g. 'and' and 'your' are actually spo
on may vary in obvious ways. You might expect to indicate hesitations e.g. 'er' a
ıd uptake signals e.g. 'uh-uh' and 'yeah' and audible breathing (hh) and indrawı
ıted.

A more difficult issue is whether and how to represent intonation and pitch; the
ctive pitch prominence might be marked by capitalizing the appropriate se
More important in many ways is marking features of conversational sequences. I
/s need to mark pauses in the talk.

ıe widely used convention is parentheses, with the length of pause indicated in t
.5)' would represent a pause of two-and-a-half seconds. Short pauses can also
s and points, with '(.)' equal to a one-syllable length pause, and '(..)' equal t
se. Another sequencing phenomenon that needs to be marked is the overlap of

## 4 Investigable Topics

re are many areas that can be investigated besides the few suggested below:

**Conversational strategies** show how does turn-taking work —·in general
nversation? According to what principles and by what means does the speake
ıo self-selects at TRPs and with what effects? What are the mechanics of i
projected? Is topic a viable unit of analysis? Do discussions of the topi
he units of conversation are insertion sequences, adjacency pairs, pre-sequ
cued and how does any contribution project beyond its moment of utterance

**tivity types** and the institutional use of language: the structure and pragmat
rviews, etc. also talk types: the structure of telephone conversations, orderi
ntributions to radio phone-ins, etc. To what extent these speech events are
extent do they determine their own structures? How is talk constraine
licate constraints on allowable contributions?

**using on power and distance,** 'relation indicating devices' (Matsumo
e these; how speakers get their own way. Face work- how speakers
nowledge the face wants of others.

**cultural pragmatics:** How members of different cultural groups accomm
ic differences.

**xt:** Does the external social structure determine the way talk is organized
occur, or is the context created by the talk itself?

**iews of talk:** Investigating the extent to which people's beliefs about pra
ss and interruption, etc.) are oriented to in the talk.

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**185 Learning by Doing**

Grundy made some comments about ways of learning pragmatics by d
analysis. Students usually do this at the end of the year. Their work
occurring data such as conversations, meetings talk, institutional talk, m
classroom talk, an interview – in fact, whatever interests them.

hey may select two minutes of this recording and may describe both the
talk context in which it occurs. If the data are transcribable and analyza
age - actually transcribing it. They bring their data to class to try out su
and to get feedback. When their approach is decided, they write about th
to use. For example, a student recorded a mother/small child exchange i
g vigorously about having to leave a place she was visiting earlier than
back home.

# KEY TERMS IN PRAGMATICS

**Ambiguity, Disambiguation and Vagueness**

**Ambiguity** is a sequence of linguistic signs (written, spoken or signed) is am if it is assigned more than one meaning by the grammar. In other words, ambigu expressions that have more than one meaning in the language. Types of Ambigu **ambiguity** is due to the syntactic structure of the utterance, as in: They are fighting fi 1988). **Lexical ambiguity** that occurs when one form corresponds to more than one meanings, like 'bank' in I pass the bank on the way to work.

**Disambiguation** is the process of selecting the intended sense of an ambigu sentence from among the senses allowed by the grammar. Disambiguation is large automatic, and most of the ambiguity, therefore goes unnoticed by the speaker or th

**Vagueness** is a vague meaning is one that is not clearly defined. Much atter vague predicates. For example, it has been argued that the predicate bald is vague. If is bald' we may not know whether the proposition expressed by the utterance is true we know all the relevant facts.

## Topic – 187 Attributive Concept and Argumentation Theory/Referential/Attribu

In relevance theory, **attributive use of a concept** is where a word or phrase concept that a speaker attributes to someone else and which she need not endorse her in this way is sometimes called an attributive concept. Attributive use is a type specifically, it is interpretive use in which there is attribution of a thought or utter example, 'An amazing thought entered into my brain', Amazing is an attribute of tho

**Argumentation Theory:** The systematic study of discourse that is intended to including the study of logical arguments and fallacies and their uses. Argumentation of pragmatics since persuading by the use of arguments is one use of language, i.e. M Argumentation theorists also investigate normative as well as descriptive aspects of

**Referential /Attributive Distinction** is a distinction between two apparent using definite descriptions, made by the philosopher Keith Donnellan (Allott, 1988). definite description is to talk about whichever individual (or individuals, for plural satisfies the material in the nominal restrictor. This is the attributive use. Another wa description is to pick out and talk about a certain individual (or individuals, for plural d

Signals and

## Topic – 188 Code Model

Code Model is a model of communication according to which commun transmission of meaning – the message – by encoding it in language or some other c encodes and transmits the message as a linguistic signal, which the receiver then dec

According to the model, a coding/decoding process will lead to perfect message if the code is shared, encoding and decoding are carried out successfully,

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degraded by noise or interrupted (Allott, 1988). The terms message, signal, transmitter an from information theory. For example, A speaker says 'Tree'. The hearer would encode branches, leaves and other parts of a tree' Encoding can also be on the sentence level.

## Topic – 189 Communicative Competence

Communicative Competence is the ability to communicate in a language. It includ with the grammatical forms of the language and the ability to put forms of the langu communication (Allott, 1988). This term was invented by the anthropologist and sociolingui

Now a popular notion in applied linguistics and language teaching, where the aim ust grammar and speech sounds, but also strategies for communicating in that language ends not so much to be concerned with pragmatics in a narrow sense (implicatures, referer etc.) as with teaching social conventions about how the language is used (Allott, 1988).

A speaker should have the competence to talk to a lady, old man, a professional c s communicative competence how perfectly you answer after analyzing the situation!

## Topic – 190 Demonstrative

A group of indexical words or phrases that are used to refer, include this, that, the English). These words are used to make demonstrative phrases, for example, this pen, that hose penguins (Allott, 1988). Demonstratives are often accompanied by a gesture that c bject referred to, pointing, or gazing at the object, i.e. 'that boy'.

As with other indexical, the referent of a demonstrative must be worked ou proposition the speaker is expressing. The particular demonstrative used restricts the sea n subtle ways. If there is one book on a table the speaker may refer to it with 'this book'

But if it is the nearer of two, then 'this book' is preferred, except if both boo nearer, when again 'that book' is acceptable. In English and other languages, the demons wo-way proximal/distal distinction, but other languages have a three way or four-wa space deixis, demonstratives are frequently used for discourse deixis, as in: "I am glad nd "This is what I'll be talking about today".

## Topic – 191 Ellipsis

When linguistic material is missing from the pronounced form of a phrase hrase/sentence is said to be (syntactically) elliptical. For example, Mary kicked John, a he verb 'kicked' has been ellipted. In the next two examples the ellipted material is ought because Mary did (fight)'. 'She has stopped now but I don't know why (she sto

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The term 'folk pragmatics' is modeled on **folk physics** are pre-theoretical expect light, how objects move, etc. (Allott, 1988). **Folk psychology** is pre-theoretical expect behavior relates to thoughts and aims.

One source of evidence about folk beliefs is how we talk about the domain in q language is rich with words to talk about communication, including: topic, interruptior 'Did you mean that?'

The vocabulary available for talking about communication differs somewhat language. For example, positive feedback to a conversational partner through short wor noises is important in conversation, across languages Systematic investigation sometimes begins with folk words and transforms them to tecl

## Topic – 193 'Formal' and 'Experimental Pragmatics'

**Formal Pragmatics** is the study of pragmatic phenomena using techniques a logic and mathematics. Formal pragmatics is largely an extension from formal, model-t into the domain of more context sensitive elements of speaker meaning (Allott, 1988).

Formal pragmatics and dynamic approaches to semantics such as Discour Theory are closely related to date, work in formal pragmatics has only been concerne pragmatic topics (Allott, 1988). The topics on the semantic-pragmatics interface, incluc ndefiniteness, presupposition, scalar implicature, conventional implicature, and focus.

Formal pragmatics serves two important functions in Haberm Philosopymasters.com). **First,** it is the theoretical underpinning of the theory of com his being a crucial element of his theory of society. **Second,** it contributes to ong liscussions regarding truth, meaning, rationality and action. (Philosopymasters.com).

In **Experimental Pragmatics**, the application of experimental techniq sycholinguistics to the areas of interest in pragmatics. Techniques used include on-lin ne measures. On-line measures contain eye-tracking and timed responses to stimuli an ıch as the choice from a set of candidates of the best sentence to describe a sc ragmatics is a very recent development, although existing psycholinguistic work emantic illusions and other aspects of interpretation is relevant (Allott, 1988).

## opic – 194 Cognitive Pragmatics

According to Bruno G.Bara (2010), Cognitive pragmatics focuses on the n me extent, the mental correlates of the participants of a conversation. The mental mmunication are based on three fundamental concepts: cooperation, sharedness, tention. These three fundamentals were proposed by Grice in 1975, though each ha other scholars.

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In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the **I principle** or Informativeness-principle is one o
rinciples that govern communicative behaviour. The **I-principle** enjoins speakers
essary (while bearing in mind the opposing Q- principle). If a speaker's utteran
erned by the I-principle, then the hearer can take it that the speaker expressed herself

The speaker can take the utterance as implicating information that is more spec
along stereotypical or expected lines (Allott, 1988). However, when marked express
rinciple comes into play.

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the **M-principle** or Manner principle is one of a
stics governing communicative behaviour. A brief formulation of the M-princ
uctions to speaker and hearer is as follows: Speaker: Do not say things in an abnor
n. Addressee: What is said in an abnormal way indicates an abnormal situation.

**– 199 Q-Principle and R-Principle**

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the **Q principle** or Quantity Principle is one of a
ples thought to govern communicative behaviour and the production of implicature
your contribution sufficient; Say as much as you can (Given R).

The Q-principle is intended to subsume Grice's first maxim of quantity and his
r maxims. The Q-principle enjoins the speaker to maximize the amount of informa
efore, described as a lower-bounding principle, and is postulated to be what is
atures.

In Neo-Gricean pragmatics, the **R principle** or 'Relation-principle' i
et of principles which govern communicative behaviour. On one formulation, th
our contribution necessary; Say no more than you must (given the Q-principle).
the speaker to minimize the amount of linguistic material uttered, or more genera
rt involved in speech. It is, therefore, described as an 'upper-bounding' principle.

**200 Linguistic Under - Determinacy Thesis**

This **expression** (and also the related expressions 'semantic underdetermina
terminacy thesis') is **used** for several distinct but related hypotheses. One of
s, or very few, encode a unique proposition: There are no 'eternal sentences',
n of sentences are 'eternal'.

second version is that in all or most cases when a sentence is uttered, what is
falls short of the proposition expressed by the speaker. Both claims are contr
the **linguistic underdeterminacy thesis**, there is general agreement that for a he
sition expressed, reference must be assigned to indexicals and ambiguities must
like: 'I decided to sell the bat here last week.' (Allott, 1988).

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## Topic – 203 Prosody and Tautology

**Prosody** is a variation in the rhythm, stress, and intonation of rather than at the lexical level. The interaction of prosody with synta prosody has on the interpretation of utterances are not well underst difference in stress between 'REcord' (the noun) and 'reCORD' (the ' But the difference in stress positions in the following examples is pr EATS grass.

**Tautology** is a statement that expresses a proposition that is ne For example: [2 + 2 = 4], [War is war.], [If it rains, it rains.]. Since tau hard to see how uttering one can be informative, relevant or cooperativ and are understood.

An utterance of 'War is war' might implicate that terrible thing i What is communicated by a tautology can vary widely, though? Not al inevitability: Archie: [Can I borrow your pen?], Brenda: [Here you are. [A pen is a pen.]. Here the tautology has been used to implicate that any do for the task at hand, perhaps via another implicature that all (function The challenge is to show how such disparate implicatures can be derive

(12-14)

## KEY THINKERS IN PRAGMAT

### – 204 John Langshaw Austin

J. L. Austin, author of a book, 'How to Do Things with Words', focuses performed with language apart from making statement's, and effectively founded has given three justifications for this approach (Allott, 1988). First, how to use wo are distinct from the facts and things they are used to talk about. The third justificati stock of words embodies all the distinctions men have found worth drawing. He e none of which reliably discriminates. A decisive consideration is that the same form as a performative or a constative, depending on intention and context.

Austin preferred to see all utterances as performative, including such ap assertions and statements (Allott, 1988). According to Austin, if the force of an uttera by its linguistic structure, just as actions are not merely physical bodily movemen what else comes in to determine the type of action performed.

Austin considered both (the speaker's) intentions and (social) conventions a n his discussion of performatives, he seems to have been more attracted to the idea /hat decide the illocutionary force of an utterance (Allott, 1988). He had in mind s mbedded in fixed social routines, such as the example he gives, naming a ship.

## opic – 205 Noam Avram Chomsky

Chomsky's views on meaning, in particular, are of direct relevance to pragm: ere is no such thing as semantics, only syntax, and pragmatics, and has been tal eory of language use is an impossibility since it would have to be a theory of every Chomskyan linguistics is a distinction between competence, what is (unconsci nguage, and performance, what is done with that knowledge.

This distinction allows linguists to focus on the properties of the grammatica ay from how it is used. Principles shared by all languages are taken to be the mmar, innately specified. For example, natural language is recursive in the sense t e embedded in another phrase with no principled limit on the depth of embedding

All languages also have structural dependencies between elements within s ctural limitations on which words can be linked (Allott, 1988). Most of Cho uistics is directed towards understanding the organizing principles of grammar s, with an emphasis on explaining rather than simply cataloguing and describing.

Generative Grammar is also a term introduced by Noam Chomsky. This wo isition of grammar has to be supplemented with an account of the acquisition s. Such as the word 'cat' somehow links the speech sounds /kæt/ to a certain con

Chomsky describes Descartes' view of language use, which he shares, as follo ch is unbounded, free of stimulus control, coherent and in the same way – wha ive aspect of language use.' appropriate, evoking thoughts that the listener might s; pragmatics, systematic study of the use of language, is pointless or impossible

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the social norms occurs where the speaker indicates a desire to be a m interacting with other community members, the speaker adapts nor unwillingly.

The categories used to describe the features of human beings, socioeconomic background/class, are abstractions. Those abstractions be are enacted through our choices of clothing, hairstyles, posture, lifestyles language. Word choice, prosody, tone of voice, degree of grammatica routines are components of socio-pragmatics. Linguistic strategies and cu speakers/listeners as they "perform identity."

While individuals are likely to use more than one cue to display work in a group setting, one may suffice to signal one aspect of a perso pronouncing 'hotpot' in Pakistani rural areas shows the involvement Interesting to see the enactment of identity in the construction of interac important in pragmatics for second language learners.

## Topic – 210 Role of Sociocultural Factors in Identity

Language learners may experience difficulties in relation to t second language. For instance, American women who were working their culture was the major language barrier. They had to face unexamin the individual and group level. Even their teaching materials reproduc local, Japanese cultural values.

Non-native speakers of an L2 may seek to maintain their pressures from their L1 community as many speakers use English a "foreign" accent allows the speakers to avoid heavy sanctions for in meaning as a nonnative speaker. Examples of ethnolinguistic identity maintenance of sociolinguistic markers in speech.

Al-Issa (2003: 594) analyzed a conversation of three intervie Sha'Allah) in their English refusal responses (LoCastro, 2012). W expression, all seemed to emphasize the role of Islam in their lives and l To understand Sociocultural factors, think about some quotes you me historical, socio-cultural, etc. or of any person who has an impact on y

## Topic – 211 Action Theory

All theories of pragmatic meaning include a basic notion, labe world knowledge, or, common ground (LoCastro 2012). Action and A speech events, in which conversants "negotiate deals, gossip, get to kn

However, when the frame for a joint activity is not share supermarket may not be able to achieve their goals. Coordination proble

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re multiple, the primary one being "what the speakers mean and what their addressee o mean" (Clark, 1996: 73).

Mis-coordination can be wiped out through language, the conventional sig xcellence, or through coordination devices such as gestures. Features of language in u lauses, the rhythmic placement of turn-taking cues, and tag questions – develop out of t oint activities.

Pragmatic meaning, that "extra" meaning that goes beyond the linguistic signal ourse of joint action. Clark's theory provides a framework for studying how speakers a gnals regarding their identities in their talk. The only evidence to support action th ociolinguistic dimensions of interactional discourse (LoCastro, 2012).

## opic – 212 Studies of Identities

One study that clearly demonstrates the ways in which participants in local act their identities in the flow of playing a game at a senior citizens' program w ashman (2005).

Rather than follow the more traditional or classic view of code switching. It is b de change as a reflection of the social structure of the urban Latino community. C embers of the community as they did "identity work," embedded in the social activity Mexican version of bingo that uses pictures rather than numbers or letters. The play d varying degrees of Spanish - English bilingual proficiency and they used languag ernation as a resource to do identity work.

In the following example, Ednita signals she is Spanish-dominant (LoCastro, lling a game of lotería, which entails, first, shaking a jar full of bottle caps, and then ta jar, saying aloud to everyone what the picture is on the cap she is holding. She is b participants in Spanish that the bottle cap has a picture of the world with a man b be up. Yesenia, who is the program coordinator at the center, translates Ednita's talk a Spanish. Cashman claims that she does so, i.e. uses both languages, because, in her ro needs to attend to the needs of both groups, the Spanish - and English speaking ser eference-related code-switching" is not necessarily related to the speakers' commu language varieties in the community's linguistic repertoire (Cashman 2005: 306).

## pic – 213 Occasioning Identity Work

Identity becomes transparent in the course of conversations, where an unex tour provides a clue that the speaker is, despite fluency in English, originally fro kground information is a feature of that person's identity. Identity also becomes notice a discussion of content where an individual contributes information about Mid paration.

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ender' we need to consider that how children acquire an awareness of gender at very e

e children learn that pink is the color for girls. This starts as nonverbal cues of female differences in language use. Tannen (1993) claimed that, though there is no question men of women exists, it is not possible to attribute the cause of the enactment of domin uistic realizations, For example, indirectness, interruptions, or topic shifts (LoCastro, 2

ding to LoCastro (2012) many books have been written on the gender-biased langua cessive use of 'He' rather than 'She'. Certain uses of language from word choice to spe linked negatively to female gender and serve to construct and reinforce social differe rences abound in this regard as well, resulting in markers of being female as highly v desirable (LoCastro, 2012).

## Western Perspectives

stro (2012) highlights a speech variable found in an individual's speech in Australia a men may drop their h's. The practice of h-dropping occurs in everyday words like (home), Trudgill (1972) and Milroy (1989).

estern cultural contexts, stereotypically, it is men who are viewed as being more lik mixed-gender groupings. Or sometimes, female participants exclude men fro by selecting topics such as 'choices of dresses, personal feelings or house chores'. In W earches have been conducted to differentiate between male/female behavior, verbal an Historically, in efforts to describe and explain the discrimination against women i focus was women's use of language. One more perspective is, women in the U.S. exp oice between being addressed by either Mrs. or Miss plus their family name.

## n Perspectives

pan, women use ''Respectful Prefixes'' known as honorifics which are based on 'poli ontext (Maynard, 1990). According to Ide and Inoue (1991), Japanese women of highe use more elaborated honorifics to signal beauty, grace, and dignity. Ide (2005) uses th on" honorifics, a form of gendered language use that, in her view, does not correla n Japan.

is been observed in India and Pakistan that English is used as a dominant language in shows that this class is influenced by western culture. Errington states that lang 'gender-neutral" in Asian Culture. Examples of the gender-neutral features are: The cing with articles, or morphemes on nouns; specific lexemes like "human" or "person" feminine or masculine. The local greeting is how many "older and younger siblings r than how many "brothers and sisters do you have" (Atkinson and Errington 1990).



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languages or exposure through local media sources such as newspapers, radio (LoCastro, 2012).

Some argue that the Internet has solved that problem for anyone in cross-cul for those who interact with different nations on social media. However, those sourc dimension of learners actually producing talk in interactional contexts (LoCastro, 20

The main focus of this module is on instructional settings, primarily Pra Classrooms, for second/foreign language learners. Why pragmatic competence i earners? Can it be taught in instructional context? What factors influence the learni

## Topic – 221 Why Is Pragmatic Competence Important for 2nd Language Learn

According to LoCastro (2012), pragmatic competence for second language ven more than acquiring high linguistic proficiency in the L2. Pragmatic Compete o use the correct phrases in a particular situation. In this situation, a well-phrasec nformation about what bus to take, not only goes far to obtain the correct informat o break down barriers.

According to LoCastro (2012), during learning, the learners should be give ersonal experience and make connections with the real world of conversational int 'e can say that Pragmatic Competence cannot be ignored in everyday conversation

## Topic – 222 Can Pragmatic Competence be Taught or Learnt in Instructed Co

LoCastro (2012) has focused on instructed development, that is, in classroc rganized for learning, as the acquisition of pragmatic competence in a naturalistic nd Rose (2002) argue that L2 pragmatics can be taught.

According to Kanaggy (1999), the children in Japan are taught the cultu agmatic meanings of the routines in classrooms including nonverbal behaviors. Cl y "thank you" without an adult in their immediate environment instructing them a ntext of use.

Local teachers can teach pragmatic competence in a better way becau eakers of the target language may shy away from making learners aware of mis al sociocultural influences (Kasper and Rose, 2002).

## pic – 223 Difficulty in the Development of Pragmatic Competence in a Class

According to LoCastro (2012), it is particularly difficult for non-native teacher mpetence in a foreign language context. They may have had no experience abroac vironment. McKay (2002) lists three reasons the ELT field has had to revise its g ictices:

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- Learners of English as a second/foreign language do not have to also learn the speakers of English;
- English is not "owned" by native speakers only; and
- The main goal of learners is to communicate their own ideas and cultures to others speakers of the language.

Another factor is lack of materials: textbooks, dictionaries, videos, mult Unfortunately, the materials may misrepresent the target language culture and its soci Another factor which gets in a way to develop pragmatic competence is ''Learns then

## Topic – 224 What can be Done to Facilitate the Teaching and Learning of Pragm

According to LoCastro (2012), teachers do not take the pain to develop pra because they are non-natives and have not experienced the environment of the targ eachers are given a chance of one- or two-months training abroad in that enviro beneficial for the learners.

Second point that LoCastro has mentioned is "Awareness Raising" among tea is a lack of teacher training programs. Teachers should be properly guided about the s the choice of activities and the importance of pragmatic competence. In the next ste would build the awareness in the learners. For example, the skills in the primary lang help them become more capable of understanding and enacting pragmatic meanings ir (LoCastro, 2012).

Teachers and students can promote discussion of diversity, difference, an language use variation as well as nonlinguistic behaviors to create mindfulness reg view of self and others. The students can also collect examples from the public ma 2012).

## Topic – 225 Training in Pragmatics Outside the Traditional Language Classroo

Teaching to develop pragmatic competence does not end for L2 learners classrooms. Indeed, there exist advanced communicative needs, particularly regardin skills, job interviews, and business letter writing tasks, etc. LoCastro (2012) has me which are highly important to find a good job.

For example, self-presentation, grammatical and lexical accuracy and appro to produce synthesized talk about personal and professional experiences and interes Louw, Derwing, and Abbott (2010) have developed a research-based pedagogica learners improve their job-interviewing skills. A combination of videos of simu

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